

ENG 201



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ENG201 Final-term Easy Notes

Business and Technical English

Lesson 23: Planning Long Reports

Definition of Report

A **report** is a formal written document that presents **facts, information, findings, and sometimes analysis and recommendations** about a specific topic. Reports are usually written after investigation or research and help in **decision making**.

📖 *Example:*

A report on the causes of low student attendance.

Introduction

A **long report** is a detailed and structured document that requires careful planning before writing. Proper planning helps the writer organize information logically, collect relevant data, and present ideas clearly and effectively.

Steps in Planning a Report

Before writing a report, facts must be arranged in a suitable format. The following steps form the foundation of any report:

1. Define the Outline and Purpose

- **Outline:** The basic structure or framework of the report
- **Purpose:** The reason for writing the report

📖 *Example:*

Purpose: To examine the reasons for poor academic performance.

2. Outline the Issue for Investigation

This step identifies the **problem or issue** that needs to be studied.

📖 *Example:*

Issue: Why are students performing poorly in examinations?

3. Prepare a Work Plan

A **work plan** is a systematic plan that shows:

- Sequence of tasks
- Sources of information
- Time schedule
- Available resources

📖 *Example:*

Week 1: Collect data

Week 2: Analyze data

Week 3: Write report

4. Conduct Research

Research means collecting information in a careful and organized way to support the report.

5. Analyze and Interpret Data, Draw Conclusions and Recommendations

- **Analyze:** Examine data carefully
- **Interpret:** Explain the meaning of data
- **Conclusion:** Final findings
- **Recommendations:** Suggested solutions

📖 *Example:*

Conclusion: Poor teaching methods affect learning.

Recommendation: Teachers should be trained regularly.

Defining the Questions

The person who authorizes the report defines the questions that need answers, such as:

- What needs to be determined?
 - Why is the issue important?
 - Who is involved?
 - Where is the problem located?
 - How did the problem start?
-

Developing the Statement of Purpose

Definition

A **statement of purpose** is a short declarative sentence (one or two lines) that clearly explains:

- What the report is about
- What the report aims to achieve

Characteristics of an Effective Purpose Statement

- Specific and precise
- Concise
- Clear and easy to understand
- Goal-oriented

Examples

✓ **Informational Report:**

Purpose: To describe the level of substance abuse among factory employees.

✓ **Analytical Report:**

Purpose: To analyze the effects of substance abuse on employee productivity and suggest solutions.

Outlining and Organizing Reports

Informational Reports

Informational reports present **facts and data only**. They do not include analysis or recommendations.

Ways to Organize Informational Reports

1. **Order of Importance**

Arrange information from most important to least important.

✍ *Example:* Product lines arranged by revenue.

2. **Sequentially**

Present information step by step.

✍ *Example:* Steps in a production process.

3. **Chronology**

Arrange information in time order.

✍ *Example:* History of an organization.

4. **Spatially**

Arrange information according to physical position.

✍ *Example:* Description of a building from top to bottom.

5. **Geography**

Organize information according to location.

✍ *Example:* Sales in different provinces.

6. **Categorically**

Divide information into categories.

✍ *Example:* Sales, profit, and investment.

Analytical Reports

Analytical reports present information **along with analysis** and usually include **recommendations**.

✍ *Example Topic:*

Why is the organization facing difficulty in hiring secretaries?

Possible analysis:

- Low salaries
- Poor location

- Declining interest in the profession
-

Rules of Division

While dividing a topic into parts:

- Divide into **at least two parts**
 - Use **one basis of division at a time**
 - Ensure parts are **separate and distinct**
 - Cover **all important aspects**
-

Preparing a Preliminary Outline

Definition

A **preliminary outline** is the first planning step that shows how the report will be organized.

Types of Preliminary Outlines

1. Alphanumeric System

Uses Roman numerals, capital letters, and numbers.

📖 *Example:*

I. Introduction
A. Background
B. Purpose

2. Decimal System

Uses numbers with decimals.

📖 *Example:*

1.0 Introduction
1.1 Background
1.2 Purpose

Preparing a Work Plan

A work plan describes:

- Tasks to be completed
 - Order of work
 - Time limits
 - Resources and expected results
-

Conducting Research: Collecting Primary Data

Primary Data

Primary data is **first-hand information** collected directly by the researcher.

Methods of Collecting Primary Data

1. Documents

Use of records, official files, reports, and historical documents.

2. Observations

Careful watching and recording events using senses and judgment.

📌 *Example:* Observing student behavior in class.

3. Surveys

Collecting data by asking people questions through questionnaires or interviews.

📌 *Example:* Survey of teachers about job satisfaction.

Final Step: Analysis, Conclusions, and Recommendations

In the final step, collected data is analyzed and interpreted. Based on findings, conclusions are drawn and practical recommendations are suggested.

Short Summary

Planning a long report involves defining the purpose, identifying the issue, preparing a work plan, and conducting research. Data is collected through documents, observations, and surveys. After analyzing the data, conclusions are drawn and recommendations are made. Proper planning and outlining make reports clear, organized, and effective.

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Lesson 24: Writing Long Reports

Introduction

Writing a long report is a careful and time-consuming process. It involves planning, research, organizing ideas, drafting, editing, and finally producing a polished document. A well-written formal report shows that the topic is important and has been handled professionally.

Report Production

Report production refers to the complete process of creating a formal report. It includes:

- Planning the report
- Conducting research
- Organizing ideas
- Developing visual aids
- Writing, editing, and rewriting
- Producing the final neat version

📖 *Example:*

After collecting data on employee performance, the writer edits and formats the report before submission.

Composing a Formal Report

A **formal report** follows specific rules and formalities. It is detailed, structured, and professional in appearance and language.

A formal report is divided into **three main parts**:

1. Prefatory Parts
 2. Body of the Report
 3. Supplementary Parts
-

1. Prefatory Parts

Prefatory parts appear at the beginning of the report and provide introductory information.

Parts of Prefatory Section

- a. Title Fly
 - b. Title Page
 - c. Letter of Authorization
 - d. Letter of Transmittal
 - e. Table of Contents
 - f. Preface
-

a. Title Fly

A **title fly** is a plain sheet that contains **only the title of the report**.

✍ *Example:*

“Report on Teacher Performance in Public Schools”

b. Title Page

The **title page** provides important identification information. It contains four main blocks:

1. Title of the report
 2. Name, title, and address of the person who authorized the report
 3. Name, title, and address of the person who prepared the report
 4. Date of submission
-

c. Letter of Authorization

This letter gives **official permission** to prepare the report.

✍ *Example:*

A letter from a school principal allowing a teacher to conduct research.

d. Letter of Transmittal

A **letter of transmittal** formally submits the report to the concerned authority.

✍ *Example:*

A letter attached with the report saying, “I am submitting my report for your review.”

e. Table of Contents

This section lists:

- Headings
- Subheadings
- Page numbers

It helps readers locate information easily.

f. Preface

A **preface** explains the purpose of the report and may include acknowledgments.

2. Body of the Report

The **body** is the most important part of the report. It presents detailed information and findings.

Parts of Body of Report

- a. Introduction
 - b. Text
 - c. Terminal Section
-

a. Introduction

The **introduction** gives an overview of the report. It explains what the report is about and how it is organized.

Functions of Introduction

- **Authorization** – Who ordered the report
- **Problem/Purpose** – Why the report is written
- **Scope** – What is covered and what is not
- **Background** – Previous information

- **Sources and Methods** – How data was collected
 - **Definitions** – Meaning of important terms
 - **Limitations** – Restrictions of the study
 - **Report Organization** – Structure of the report
-

b. Text

The **text** is the main and central part of the report. It contains:

- Facts
- Data analysis
- Interpretation of findings

This section is divided into chapters or sections. Language, style, and visual aids should match the level of the reader.

🔗 *Example:*

Analysis of survey results presented in paragraphs and tables.

c. Terminal Section

The **terminal section** concludes the body of the report and may include:

- Summary
 - Conclusions
 - Recommendations
-

Summary

A **summary** briefly restates the main findings of the report.

Conclusions

Conclusions explain the meaning of facts based on analysis. They should be:

- Logical

- Unbiased
 - Free from personal opinions
-

Recommendations

Recommendations suggest future actions or solutions based on findings.

📖 *Example:*

Recommendation: Improve training programs for employees.

3. Supplementary Parts

Supplementary parts appear at the end of the report and provide additional support material.

Types of Supplementary Parts

- a. Appendix
 - b. Bibliography
 - c. Glossary
 - d. Index
-

a. Appendix

An **appendix** includes extra material that supports the report, such as:

- Tables
 - Charts
 - Graphs
 - Pictures
-

b. Bibliography

A **bibliography** lists all sources used in the report.

📖 *Examples:*

Books, newspapers, journals, magazines, government publications.

c. Glossary

A **glossary** is an alphabetical list of difficult or technical terms with their meanings. It helps both technical and non-technical readers.

d. Index

An **index** lists topics and subtopics with page numbers in alphabetical order. It helps readers find information quickly.

Visual Aids

Visual aids are used to present information clearly and effectively. They should be accurate and not misleading.

Types of Visual Aids

- Tables
- Line charts
- Surface charts

👉 *Example:*

A line chart showing sales growth over five years.

Short Summary

Writing a long report involves careful planning, drafting, and presentation. A formal report consists of prefatory parts, the body, and supplementary parts. The body includes introduction, text, and terminal sections, while appendices and references are added at the end. Proper structure and visual aids make reports clear, professional, and easy to understand.

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Lesson 25: General Reports (Simple Notes)

Introduction

A **general report** is written to give information, explain facts, and help readers make decisions. The **length, style, and detail** of a report depend on the situation and purpose of the report.

Report-Writing Situations

Report-writing situations can be **different in length and purpose**.

Examples:

- A very long report (100–200 pages) for scientific or environmental projects
- A medium-length report (10–15 pages) based on library research
- A very short report (1–2 paragraphs) based on a visit or observation

Important Point:

There is **no fixed length** for a report. It may be very short or very long, depending on the task.

How Readers Want to Use the Information

Readers use reports to solve different types of problems:

1. Organizational Problems

These relate to organizations and businesses.

- Goal: Increase efficiency and profit

Example:

A report on improving company productivity.

2. Social Problems

These relate to society and groups of people.

- Goal: Improve health, safety, and welfare

Example:

A report on environmental pollution.

3. Personal Problems

These relate to individual choices and preferences.

- Goal: Help individuals make decisions

Example:

A report comparing mobile phone companies.

Questions Readers Ask Most Often

Readers usually want answers to these questions:

- What will we gain from this report?
 - Are the facts trustworthy?
 - What useful information does the report provide?
 - How do you explain the facts?
 - Why are these facts important to us?
 - What action should we take?
-

General Superstructure of Reports

The **general superstructure** means the **basic structure** of a report.

A general report has **six main parts**:

- a. Introduction
 - b. Method of obtaining facts
 - c. Facts
 - d. Discussion
 - e. Conclusions
 - f. Recommendations
-

a. Introduction

The **introduction** explains:

- What problem the report addresses
- Why the report is important
- How the reader can use the information

It answers the reader's question:

☞ *"What will we gain by reading this report?"*

b. Method of Obtaining Facts

This section explains **how the information was collected**.

It may include:

- Reading books or articles
- Surveys
- Interviews
- Experiments

📖 Example:

Data was collected through questionnaires and interviews.

c. Facts

Facts are the **actual pieces of information** collected during research.

Examples:

- Answers given in interviews
- Results of surveys
- Data from books or experiments

📖 Important:

Facts must be **true and verifiable**.

d. Discussion

In the **discussion**, the writer:

- Explains the meaning of facts
- Shows why facts are important
- Connects facts to the reader's needs

📖 Simple idea:

Facts alone are not enough; they must be **explained**.

e. Conclusions

Conclusions are general statements based on facts and discussion.

They answer the reader's question:

☞ *"Why are these facts important to us?"*

☞ Important:

- Conclusions should be logical
 - They should not be personal opinions
-

f. Recommendations

Recommendations suggest **what action should be taken**.

They answer the reader's question:

☞ *"What should we do now?"*

Recommendations may be:

- One sentence
- Several paragraphs (in long reports)

☞ Example:

The company should improve training programs.

A Note About Summaries

Many long reports include a **summary at the beginning**.

Executive Summary

An **executive summary**:

- Gives a brief overview of the whole report
 - Is written for decision-makers
 - Saves time for busy readers
-

Short Summary

General reports vary in length and purpose. Readers use reports to solve organizational, social, or personal problems. A general report follows a clear structure: introduction, method, facts, discussion, conclusions, and recommendations. This structure helps readers understand information easily and make correct decisions.

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Lesson 26: Empirical Research Report (Simple Notes)

Introduction

An **empirical research report** is written to present the **results of research based on real data**. This data is collected through **observation, experiments, surveys, or questionnaires**. Such reports help people **make decisions** or **increase knowledge**.

Definition of Empirical Research Report

An **empirical research report** is a report that:

- Uses **real data**
- Is based on **observation or experiments**
- Answers a **research question** or tests a **hypothesis**

👉 Example:

A report based on a survey of teachers about teaching methods.

Purpose of Empirical Research

Empirical research is done for two main purposes:

1. Practical Purpose

- Helps organizations make decisions

👉 Example:

Engineers use research results to improve engine design.

2. Knowledge Purpose

- Helps increase general human knowledge

👉 Example:

Research on how friendships develop or how fish remember things.

👉 Important Point:

Sometimes both purposes exist together. Research may help organizations and also increase general knowledge.

Questions Readers Ask Most Often

Readers of empirical research reports usually ask these **seven questions**:

1. Why is this research important to us?
 2. What were you trying to find out?
 3. Was your research method correct and reliable?
 4. What results did you get?
 5. How do you explain these results?
 6. Why are these results important?
 7. What should we do next?
-

Superstructure of Empirical Research Reports

Superstructure means the **standard structure** of an empirical research report.

It includes **seven parts**:

- a. Introduction
 - b. Objectives of Research
 - c. Methods
 - d. Results
 - e. Discussion
 - f. Conclusions
 - g. Recommendations
-

a. Introduction

The **introduction** answers this question:

👉 *Why is this research important?*

It includes:

- Announcement of research topic

- Importance of the topic

Announcing the Topic

The topic is usually stated in the **first sentence**.

👉 Example:

This study examines communication between truck drivers and companies using satellite systems.

Explaining Importance

Importance can be explained by:

- Linking research to organization goals
 - Explaining how research solves a problem
-

Literature Review (Simple Meaning)

A **literature review** means:

- Explaining what is already known
- Showing what is **missing**
- Explaining how your research fills that gap

👉 Note:

Literature review is common in **journal reports**, but often **not needed** in organizational reports.

b. Objectives of the Research

Objectives are the **specific aims** of the research.

They:

- Show what the research focuses on
- Guide the research method
- Help explain results

👉 Example:

The objective was to test the quality of voice transmission in different areas.

Objectives Using Hypotheses

A **hypothesis** is a statement that can be tested.

👉 Example:

Better communication improves driver performance.

c. Method

The **method section** explains **how the research was done**.

It includes:

- Who participated
- Tools used (survey, experiment, questionnaire)
- Procedure of research

Why Method is Important

It helps readers:

- Judge if research is reliable
- Understand limitations
- Repeat the research if needed

👉 Example:

Students completed questionnaires every three weeks.

d. Results

Results are the **data collected** from research.

They are usually shown using:

- Tables
- Graphs

👉 Example:

Survey results presented in tables.

e. Discussion

In the **discussion section**, the writer:

- Explains what the results mean
- Connects results to objectives

👉 Important:

Results must be explained clearly, not just shown.

f. Conclusions

Conclusions explain:

- What the results mean
- How they answer research questions

👉 Example:

Improved communication increases efficiency.

g. Recommendations

Recommendations suggest:

- What actions should be taken
- What future research is needed

👉 Example:

Companies should adopt satellite communication systems.

Short Summary

An empirical research report presents findings based on real data. It follows a clear structure: introduction, objectives, methods, results, discussion, conclusions, and recommendations. Such reports help organizations make decisions and also increase human knowledge.

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Lesson 27: Feasibility Reports

1. What is a Feasibility Report?

A **feasibility report** is a report that **helps decision-makers choose the best option** among two or more alternatives.

Key points:

- It studies whether a plan is **possible, practical, and useful**.
- Even if the report focuses on one solution, readers often consider doing **nothing** as the second option.

Example:

- A paper mill wants to reduce costs. The report studies whether using **plastic instead of metal parts** will work. The alternative of **keeping metal parts** is also considered.
-

2. Typical Writing Situation

Feasibility reports are written when:

1. A change is needed, or a new solution is being considered.
2. Decision-makers need help to **compare different options**.

Example:

- A bank wants to open a new branch. A feasibility report helps decide if the new branch is profitable and practical.
-

3. Questions Readers Ask Most Often

Decision-makers usually want answers to these questions:

1. **Why should we consider these alternatives?** – Explain why making a choice is important.
 2. **Are your criteria reasonable?** – Show how you judge each alternative.
 3. **Are your facts reliable?** – Readers must trust your data.
 4. **What are the alternatives?** – Explain all options clearly.
 5. **How do alternatives compare with criteria?** – Show which option is better.
 6. **What conclusions can be drawn?** – Give overall judgment.
 7. **What do you recommend?** – Suggest the best option based on evaluation.
-

4. Superstructure of a Feasibility Report

A feasibility report usually has **seven parts**:

a. Introduction

- Explains the **problem or goal**.
- Shows **why the report is important**.
- May include **main conclusions** or **major recommendations**.

Example:

- Fawaz studies whether using a cheaper chemical in paper production will save money without reducing quality. He concludes: "One chemical, Zenolux 26 T, looks promising for testing in a mill."

Difficult term:

- **Introduction:** The opening section that gives **purpose, background, and importance** of the report.
-

b. Criteria

- **Criteria** = standards or rules used to **judge options**.
- Helps readers understand how each alternative is **evaluated**.

Examples of criteria:

1. Will it work? (**Effectiveness**)
2. Can we implement it? (**Feasibility**)
3. Can we afford it? (**Cost**)
4. Is it desirable? (**Benefits or value**)

Important: Present criteria **early**, so readers know what standards you use to judge alternatives.

Difficult terms:

- **Criteria:** Rules or standards used to **compare options**.
 - **Feasible:** Something that is **possible to do**.
-

c. Method of Obtaining Facts

- Shows **how you collected data** for the report.
- Ensures readers that facts are **reliable**.

Sources of facts:

- Library research
- Surveys
- Interviews
- Expert advice
- Laboratory research

Example:

- Shazi estimated potential deposits for a new bank branch using **financial data, surveys, and market research**.
-

d. Overview of Alternatives

- Explains **all options** considered.
- Readers need to understand alternatives before evaluation.

Example:

- Option 1: Increase starting salaries for store managers
- Option 2: Keep salaries the same

Sometimes **only a few words** are needed; sometimes detailed explanation is required.

e. Evaluation

- Core part of the report.
- Each alternative is **judged against the criteria**.
- Strengths and weaknesses are highlighted.

Example:

- Shazi evaluates a new bank branch:
 - Market size = good

- Competition = moderate
 - Expected profit = high
-

f. Conclusions

- Overall judgment about the alternatives.
- Based on **evaluation**, not personal opinion.

Example:

- “Opening a new branch in Gulberg is feasible and profitable, but there are some challenges.”
-

g. Recommendations

- Final advice to decision-makers.
- Answers: “**What should we do?**”

Example:

- “Proceed with opening the new bank branch but monitor local competition.”
 - Sometimes, the report may suggest **more research** if information is not enough.
-

5. Summary – Exam Friendly Points

1. **Feasibility report** = a report to compare options and help decision-making.
2. Reports answer **key questions**: importance, criteria, facts, alternatives, evaluation, conclusions, recommendations.
3. **Seven elements of a feasibility report**:
 - Introduction
 - Criteria
 - Method of obtaining facts
 - Overview of alternatives
 - Evaluation
 - Conclusions

- Recommendations
- 4. **Criteria** = standards to judge alternatives (effectiveness, feasibility, cost, desirability).
- 5. Use **examples and clear facts** to make reports trustworthy.

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Lesson 28: Progress Reports

1. What is a Progress Report?

A **progress report** tells:

- **What work has been done** during a certain time.
- **Problems or delays** in the project.
- **Future tasks** to complete the project.

Purpose:

- To **check progress** and make sure the work is on track.

Example:

- Lee, a geologist, reports every two weeks on a city site study. His report shows what he has done, problems, and next steps.

Difficult terms:

- **Progress report** = a report showing **past work, current problems, and future plans**.
 - **Accountability** = being **responsible for your work**.
-

2. Typical Situations

Situation 1: Single Project

- Example: Lee studies a site for a civic center.
- Readers: His boss and the city engineer.
- Purpose: To **check progress** and **make decisions**.

Situation 2: Multiple Projects

- Example: Jacqueline manages 10–20 projects for improving detergents.
- Readers: Her bosses, other departments, planners.
- Purpose: To summarize work **regularly** and help planning.

Key:

- Reports can be **for one project or many**, for **internal or external readers**.
-

3. Why Readers Care About the Future

Even if the report talks about **past work**, readers mainly want to know **how it affects future work**:

- To plan future tasks
- Adjust schedules, resources, or budget
- Use early results in other projects

Example:

- Lee's early site results may help decide **where to build other structures**.

Difficult terms:

- **Preliminary results** = early results **used before the project is complete**.
 - **Interdependent projects** = projects that **affect each other**.
-

4. Questions Readers Usually Ask

1. **What work does your report cover?** → Project name & time period
 2. **What is the purpose of the work?** → Why the work matters
 3. **Is your work on schedule?** → Check delays or issues
 4. **What results did you achieve?** → Important achievements
 5. **What progress is expected next?** → Future tasks
 6. **Overall status?** → General progress
 7. **What should be done?** → Suggestions to fix problems
-

5. Structure of a Progress Report

1. **Introduction**
 2. **Facts**
 3. **Discussion**
 4. **Conclusions**
 5. **Recommendations**
-

a. Introduction

- Answers:
 1. **What work does the report cover?**
 2. **Why is this work important?**
 - Example:
 - “This report covers the Focus Project from July 1 to Sept 1. Its aim is to solve problems in making photovoltaic cells for electricity.”
-

b. Facts and Discussion

- Present: **What happened, results, future tasks**
- Compare **actual progress** vs **planned progress**
- Explain **delays or changes**
- Only include info **useful for decisions**

Tip: Skip minor details or small issues.

c. Organizing Discussion

Two main ways:

1. **By time:**
 - Last period: what happened
 - Next period: what will happen

2. By project/task:

- Project A → last period & next period
- Project B → last period & next period

Tip: Keep all info **together for easy reading**.

d. Highlight Important Findings and Problems

- Findings = info others can **use immediately**
 - Problems = info others need to **adjust plans**
 - Make them **easy to find in the report**
-

e. Conclusions

- Overall view of project progress
 - Optional for short reports
 - Useful if **covering many projects**
-

f. Recommendations

- Suggest ways to:
 - Solve problems
 - Improve the project
 - Make results more useful
 - Example: Adjust schedule, change method, or focus on important tasks
-

6. Summary – Exam Tips

- **Progress report** = shows past work, current problems, and future plans
- **Purpose:** monitor progress and help decisions
- Readers care about **future actions**

- Answer key questions: work, purpose, progress, results, future tasks, overall status, suggestions
- **Structure:** Introduction → Facts → Discussion → Conclusions → Recommendations
- Focus only on **important info**

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Lesson 29: Proposals

1. What is a Proposal?

A **proposal** is a special report written to **get a plan, product, or project approved** by a client, business, or government.

Purpose:

- To convince decision-makers to invest **time, money, or resources**.

Example:

- Helen writes a proposal asking her boss's permission to create a computer program for scheduling conference rooms.

Difficult terms:

- **Proposal** = a report that asks for approval or resources to do something.
 - **Investor/decision-maker** = the person who decides whether to approve your proposal.
-

2. Types of Proposal Situations

1. **Internal proposals** – written for people **inside your organization**.
2. **External proposals** – written for people **outside your organization**, like the government.
3. **Requested proposals** – when someone asks you to submit a proposal.
4. **Unrequested proposals** – when you submit it on your **own initiative**.
5. **Competitive proposals** – competing with others for approval or funding.
6. **Non-competitive proposals** – considered on **their own merits**.

Examples:

- Helen's proposal is **internal, unrequested, non-competitive**.

- The TV station writers' proposal is **external, requested, competitive**, seeking government funds for a TV program.
-

3. Proposal Readers are Investors

- Proposal readers **invest time, money, or resources** to approve your project.
- They are **careful** because resources are limited and choosing your project means not choosing another.

Key point: Your proposal must **persuade** them that your plan is worth investing in.

4. Questions Readers Usually Ask

1. **Problem:** Why is this project needed? Why is it important?
 2. **Solution/Product:** What exactly will be done? How will it solve the problem?
 3. **Costs:** How much will it cost? Is it worth it?
 4. **Capability/Qualifications:** Can the proposer actually do this work successfully?
-

5. Strategy – Superstructure of Proposals

The **superstructure** is a framework that helps you answer readers' questions. It usually includes **10 elements**, but at minimum, you should cover:

- **Introduction**
- **Problem**
- **Solution**
- **Costs**

The 10-element structure:

1. **Introduction** – announce your proposal briefly.
 - Example: "I request permission to spend two weeks creating a program to schedule conference rooms."
2. **Problem** – explain the issue your proposal addresses. Make it **relevant to readers**.
 - Example: "Meetings are delayed because conference rooms are double-booked."

3. **Objectives** – goals of your proposal.

- Example: “Ensure all conference rooms can be booked efficiently.”

4. **Product** – what the project will produce.

- Example: “A computer program that schedules and manages room bookings.”

5. **Method** – how you will complete the project.

- Example: “I will design, code, and test the program over two weeks.”

6. **Resources** – tools, equipment, or staff needed.

- Example: “A computer, software, and access to the booking system.”

7. **Schedule** – timeline of tasks.

- Example: “Week 1: design and code; Week 2: testing and implementation.”

8. **Qualifications** – show your **skills and experience** to prove you can do it.

- Example: “I have 3 years’ experience writing office software.”

9. **Management** – team structure if more people are involved.

- Example: “Team leader coordinates tasks, two developers handle coding.”

10. **Costs** – money, time, or other resources required.

- Example: “Project costs \$500 for software tools and 80 work hours.”
-

6. Length of Proposals

- Can be **short** (1 paragraph, like Helen’s) or **long** (hundreds of pages, like NASA proposals).
- Length depends on:
 1. Complexity of the project
 2. Readers’ questions
 3. Number of topics needed

Tip: Even a short proposal must answer **the main questions** clearly.

7. Summary – Exam-Friendly Points

- **Proposal** = report asking for approval or investment.
- **Readers** = cautious investors; they want to know problem, solution, costs, and capabilities.
- **Superstructure** = Introduction → Problem → Objectives → Product → Method → Resources → Schedule → Qualifications → Management → Costs.
- **Keep it persuasive:** show importance, feasibility, and benefit.
- **Length** depends on readers, project complexity, and needed details.

Business and Technical English

Lesson 30: Instructions

1. What are Instructions?

Instructions are written directions that tell readers **how to do a task or operate equipment**.

Examples:

- Short instructions: Ohio license plate stickers – “Place sticker on clean, dry surface.”
 - Long instructions: Manuals for airplane engines, computers, or machinery.
-

2. Three Important Points When Writing Instructions

1. **Shape readers’ attitudes** – Readers often dislike reading instructions. Good instructions should encourage them to **follow the steps carefully**.
 2. **Good visual design** – Use clear **page layout, charts, diagrams, and drawings** to make instructions easy to follow.
 3. **Testing is essential** – Always check if your instructions work by letting real users try them.
-

3. Why Instructions Shape Attitudes

- People may ignore instructions if they seem **difficult or boring**.
- Good instructions can:
 - Prevent accidents or damage.

- Ensure correct use of equipment.
 - Make readers **trust the company and its products.**
-

4. Importance of Visual Design

Page Design

- Readers read a step → perform it → read the next step.
- A good page layout helps them **find the next step quickly.**
- Poor layout → frustration → readers may **ignore instructions.**

Visual Aids

- Pictures, diagrams, or flowcharts can explain things **faster than words.**
 - Poor visuals confuse readers, just like poor writing.
-

5. Testing Instructions

- Writing instructions is **trickier than it seems.**
- Because you know the procedure well, you may **forget steps.**
- Even small errors can:
 - Cause delays
 - Create confusion
 - Be dangerous if safety is involved

Solution: Test instructions with actual users and gather feedback.

6. Superstructure of Instructions

Most instructions include some or all of these elements:

1. **Introduction** – Briefly explain what the instructions are about.
2. **Subject** – Name the topic or equipment.
 - Example: “This manual tells you how to operate the Tire Uniformity Optimizer.”

3. **Aim/Purpose** – What the instructions help the reader achieve.
 - Example: Test, grade, and sort tires.
 4. **Intended Readers** – Specify who the instructions are for.
 - Example: Beginners, technicians, or general users.
 5. **Scope** – What the instructions cover and what they don't.
 - Example: Shows how to use a computer mouse and keyboard.
 6. **Organization** – Explain how the instructions are structured.
 - Helps readers **find information quickly**.
 7. **Usage** – How to use the instructions properly.
 - Example: Follow step by step, or use headings to locate steps.
 8. **Motivation** – Encourage readers to **follow instructions fully**.
 - Example: “Read carefully to ensure safe operation.”
 9. **Background** – Explain equipment and theory if needed.
 - Example: How a machine works or why steps are done.
 10. **Description of Equipment** – Details about the tools or machine.
 11. **Theory of Operation** – How the equipment works.
 12. **List of Materials/Equipment** – All things needed to complete the task.
 13. **Directions/Steps** – Step-by-step instructions.
-

7. Tips for Writing Directions

- Present **one step at a time** in a numbered list.
 - Example:
 1. Drain the canister.
 2. Release the latch.
 3. Unscrew the cap.
- Use **headings** to show the structure of the task.

- Use **active voice and imperative mood**: “Set the dial to seven.”
 - Use **illustrations** to show actions.
 - Include **warnings** before dangerous steps.
 - Give enough **detail** so readers can complete the task.
 - Offer **alternative steps** if applicable.
-

8. Summary – Exam-Friendly Points

- **Instructions** tell readers how to do a task or operate equipment.
- Key features:
 1. Shape readers’ attitude
 2. Good visual design
 3. Testing is essential
- Superstructure includes: Introduction → Subject → Aim → Readers → Scope → Organization → Usage → Motivation → Background → Equipment → Theory → Materials → Directions
- Use **simple, clear steps**, visuals, and warnings.

Business and Technical English

Lesson 31: Using Visual Aids

1. What Are Visual Aids?

Visual aids are tools that show information **visually**, like:

- Posters
- Graphs
- Tables
- Diagrams
- Flowcharts
- Scale models

- Videos

Purpose: They make presentations or instructions **clearer and easier to understand**.

Example: Airlines use **wordless safety instruction sheets** to show passengers how to leave the plane in emergencies.

2. Computers and Visual Aids

Even when using software to make graphs or charts, you still decide:

- Which data goes on the horizontal and vertical axes
- Intervals for data
- Labels for the graph

Key: Visual aids do not work automatically; you must design them **carefully**.

3. Guidelines for Using Visual Aids

a. Clarify Relationships Among Data

- Use graphs or charts to show how numbers relate.
- Example: Lab results, survey data.

b. Support Your Arguments

- Visual aids can **prove your point**.
- Example: Graphs showing effects of different materials on greenhouse performance.

c. Make Detailed Info Easy to Find

- Tables and charts can present complex info **faster than text**.
- Example: Film development times depending on tank size and temperature.

d. Consider Your Readers' Tasks

- Different tasks need different visual aids.
- Example: Comparing salaries of graduates from three departments – choose the visual that is easiest for readers to interpret.

e. Consider Your Readers' Attitudes

- Use visuals that **clearly show your point**.
 - Avoid assuming readers know specialized symbols or charts.
-

4. Tips for Making Visual Aids Effective

a. Keep Visuals Simple

- Avoid overcrowding with too much info.
- Use 2–3 simple visuals instead of one complex one.

b. Label Important Content Clearly

- Labels help readers **understand what they are seeing**.

c. Provide Informative Titles

- Titles should be **brief but descriptive**.
- Use numbering:
 - Figures → 1, 2, 3...
 - Tables → I, II, III...

Note: Short tables in text may not need a title.

5. Integrate Visual Aids with Your Text

Visual aids should **work together with your writing** to deliver one clear message.

How to Integrate:

1. **Introduce visuals in the text**
 - Give the reader any info needed to understand it.
 2. **State the conclusions clearly**
 - Tell readers **what to learn or notice** from the visual.
 3. **Make visuals easy to find**
 - Place near the text that mentions it, or give page references if in appendix.
-

Summary – Exam-Friendly Points

- **Visual aids** = graphs, tables, diagrams, posters, videos.
- **Purpose:** Make info easier to understand, support arguments, show data relationships.
- **Key rules:**
 1. Keep it simple
 2. Label important info
 3. Provide titles and numbering
 4. Integrate with text – introduce, explain, and place carefully
- **Remember:** Avoid assuming readers know specialized charts or symbols.

Business and Technical English

Lesson 32: Creating Visual Aids (Simplified)

Visual aids are tools like **tables, graphs, pictures, or charts** that show information visually instead of just words. They help readers understand information faster and more clearly.

1. Tables

Definition: A table organizes information in **rows (horizontal lines)** and **columns (vertical lines)**.

Purpose: Show lots of facts clearly.

Example: A table showing students' marks in different subjects.

Tips:

- Label rows and columns clearly.
 - Align numbers neatly.
 - Leave some space to make it easy to read.
-

2. Bar Graphs

Definition: A bar graph shows quantities using **bars**. Longer bars = bigger quantity.

Purpose: Compare amounts or show trends.

Example: A graph showing the number of apples sold each month.

Tip: Always start the quantity axis from **zero** to avoid confusion.

3. Pictographs

Definition: Like a bar graph, but **uses pictures instead of bars**.

Purpose: Make data more visual and easy to remember.

Example: Using apple icons to show how many apples were sold each month.

Tip: Make all pictures the same size; use more pictures for bigger quantities.

4. Line Graphs

Definition: A graph that shows how one thing changes with another.

Purpose: Show trends over time or compare trends.

Example: A graph showing temperature changes over a week.

Tip:

- Horizontal line = **time or independent variable**
 - Vertical line = **quantity or dependent variable**
-

5. Pie Charts

Definition: A circle divided into **wedges** to show parts of a whole.

Purpose: Show percentages or how something is divided.

Example: A chart showing how a budget is divided into rent, food, and savings.

Tip: Arrange wedges to easily compare sizes.

6. Photographs

Definition: Real pictures used to show something exactly as it is.

Purpose: Show appearance, condition, or location.

Example: Picture of a new lab machine in a manual.

7. Drawings & Diagrams

Drawings

Definition: Show exactly what something looks like.

Example: Drawing of a car engine.

Diagrams

Definition: Show something in a **simplified or symbolic way**.

Example: Flow of water in a water treatment plant using arrows and shapes.

Tip: Always explain what shapes or symbols mean.

8. Flow Charts

Definition: Diagrams showing **steps in a process** using boxes and arrows.

Purpose: Show how tasks or decisions happen step by step.

Example: Steps for making a cup of tea: Boil water → Add tea → Steep → Serve

9. Organizational Charts

Definition: Shows **who works where and who reports to whom**.

Purpose: Show the structure of a company.

Example: CEO → Managers → Employees

Tip: Use a pyramid shape for most companies.

10. Schedule Charts

Definition: Shows **tasks and their timing** in a project.

Purpose: Plan or track a project.

Example: Project tasks over months, like research → writing → review → submission.

11. Budget Statements

Definition: A table showing **money earned or spent**.

Purpose: Track expenses, costs, or savings.

Example: Table showing money spent on rent, food, and transport.

12. Key Tips for All Visual Aids

- Keep them **simple and easy to read**
- Label everything clearly
- Give a **title**

- Make sure they **match the text** (explain them in words too)

Business and Technical English

Lesson 33: Writing Specifications and Analysis Reports (Simplified)

1. Introduction

Specifications and analysis reports are very important in industries like **computers**. They guide engineers, programmers, and technicians about **what to build, how to build it, and how to test it**.

Bad specifications can cause **mistakes, wasted time, and extra costs**.

2. Types of Specifications

Specifications are detailed descriptions of products or processes. There are **four main types**:

a) Requirement Specifications

- **Definition:** Based on market research; tells **what the market or users want**.
 - **Parts:**
 1. **Product definition:** What the product is. Example: "This is a lightweight laptop for students."
 2. **Functions list:** What it should do. Example: "It should run Microsoft Office, connect to Wi-Fi, and play videos."
 3. **Cost:** Estimated price to compete in the market.
-

b) Functional Specifications

- **Definition:** Shows **what the product should be able to do** in detail. Used to guide designers.
- **Hardware example:** Computers, machines
 - Functional description, physical features, power requirements, standards, risks, maintenance costs, documentation.
- **Software example:** Apps, programs

- Functional description, product features, risks, memory & performance needs, documentation.
-

c) Design Specifications

- **Definition:** Detailed instructions to **build the product**. Later used to make test plans and manuals.
 - **Hardware design:** Includes functional description, external interfaces (how it connects to other devices), power requirements, reliability, standards, environmental needs.
 - **Software design:** Includes functional description, memory/performance needs, test strategies, deviations, interfaces.
-

d) Test Specifications

- **Definition:** Shows **how to test the product** to make sure it works correctly.
 - **Includes:**
 1. Introduction
 2. Related documents
 3. Unit to be tested
 4. Step-by-step testing procedure
 5. Precautions
 6. Glossary (definition of special terms)
-

3. Analysis Reports

- **Definition:** Documents that **analyze a situation, product, or project** and provide conclusions.
 - **Purpose:** Help management or team make decisions.
 - There is **no single perfect format**; it can vary depending on the company and audience.
-

3a. Parts of an Analysis Report

1. **Title Page**

- Balanced design with clear title.
- Helps readers understand what the report is about.

2. **Abstract**

- Short summary of the report.
- Tells what was done, what was found, and why it matters.
- Example: “This report analyzes laptop sales trends and predicts market growth.”

3. **Table of Contents**

- List of sections and page numbers for easy navigation.

4. **List of Symbols** (Optional)

- Explains any special symbols used in the report.

5. **Introduction**

- Explains the purpose of the report, the main issues, and what it aims to achieve.

6. **Discussion**

- Detailed analysis with evidence.
- Subdivide into subtopics with headings.

7. **Conclusion**

- Summarizes results and evaluation.
- Can list each conclusion separately for clarity.

8. **Recommendations** (Optional)

- Suggests **what to do next** based on findings.

9. **Appendix**

- Extra details like raw data, equations, or tables.
- Only include what the audience needs.

Key Terms Simplified

Term	Simplified Definition	Example
Specification	A detailed description of a product or system	Laptop should have 8GB RAM and 256GB SSD
Functional Specification	Explains what the product should do	Laptop should run video editing software
Design Specification	Explains how to build the product	Laptop motherboard layout and power supply details
Test Specification	Explains how to test the product	Step-by-step testing of laptop battery life
Abstract	Short summary of the report	“This report shows sales trends for 2025.”
Appendix	Extra supporting info at the end of a report	Raw sales data or detailed calculations

Business and Technical English

Lesson 34: How to Avoid Common Writing Problems

1. Writer's Block

Definition: Writer's block is when you **get stuck and cannot continue writing**.

Causes and Solutions:

1. **Lack of information:** You don't have enough facts or research.
 - **Solution:** Collect more information.
 - **Example:** You cannot write about solar panels if you don't know their efficiency.
2. **Unclear purpose:** You don't know the goal of your writing.
 - **Solution:** Make a clear **purpose statement** and outline.
 - **Example:** “This report explains solar panel types, their benefits, and costs.”
3. **Poor audience analysis:** You don't know who will read your work.
 - **Solution:** Identify your readers and what they need.
4. **Lack of confidence:** You don't believe in your writing skills.
 - **Solution:** Use systematic writing steps and practice regularly.

2. Organizational Problems

Definition: Problems in the **arrangement of ideas** in your writing.

- Can confuse readers if not fixed.
- **Solution:** Organize ideas **logically**, either:
 - **Chronologically:** in time order
 - **Spatially:** by location or sections

Example: Writing a project report step by step: planning → testing → results.

3. Punctuation Problems

Definition: Mistakes in commas, periods, semicolons, quotation marks, etc.

Example:

- Wrong:

Professor Bashir wrote The Future of Artificial Intelligence he has become well known as a result.

- Correct:

Professor Bashir wrote “The Future of Artificial Intelligence”; he has become well known as a result.

Tip: Proper punctuation makes writing **clear and easy to read**.

4. Readability Problems

Definition: Readability is how **easy it is for readers to understand your writing**.

Tool: Gunning’s Fog Index – shows the reading level needed to understand the text.

How to calculate:

1. Take 100 words from your text.
2. Count sentences → calculate average sentence length.
3. Count words with 3+ syllables (ignore names, combined words, or prefixes/suffixes).
4. Add average sentence length + number of 3+ syllable words.
5. Multiply by 0.04 → Fog Index.

Example: Fog Index 12 → text is suitable for someone in grade 12.

5. Writing Style Problems

Definition: Style depends on **how sentences are written**. Clear style improves understanding.

4 Basic Sentence Types:

Type	Structure	Example
SV	Subject + Verb	The programmer (S) quits (V).
SVO	Subject + Verb + Object	The programmer (S) kicked the terminal (O).
SLVC	Subject + Linking Verb + Complement	The programmer (S) felt (LV) sick (C).
SVIO	Subject + Verb + Indirect Object + Object	The programmer (S) gave (V) the engineer (IO) a headache (O).

6. How to Edit Your Work

Editing improves your writing in **4 areas**:

1. **Organizational Logic:**
 - Arrange ideas in a clear order (chronological or spatial).
2. **Mechanical Development of Topic:**
 - Check transitions between sentences and paragraphs.
 - **Transition** = linking ideas using words or repeated phrases.
 - **Example:** “Finally, we tested the software.”
3. **Writer’s Style:**
 - **Persuasive style:** to sell ideas or products.
 - **Objective style:** to report information.
4. **Quality of Manuscript:**
 - Manuscript = written report.
 - Should be **neat, readable, and organized**.

- Include enough detail for readers.
- **Proofreading:** quick check for errors.
- **Editing:** improves clarity, logic, and style.

Key Terms Simplified

Term	Meaning	Example
Writer's Block	Cannot continue writing	Staring at a blank screen
Readability	Ease of reading	Short sentences are easy to read
Fog Index	Reading level needed	Index 12 → grade 12 students can understand
Transition	Words linking ideas	<i>Finally, Next, Therefore</i>
Manuscript	Written report or paper	Project report or thesis paper

Business and Technical English

Lesson 35: Language Review

1. Paragraph Unity

Definition: All sentences in a paragraph should **talk about the same main idea**.

Example:

- Topic: Adaptive optics (technology in telescopes).
- Sentences explain only how adaptive optics works and improves telescope images.
- ✗ Wrong: Mixing unrelated ideas, like telescopes and cars, breaks unity.

Difficult term:

- **Adaptive optics:** Technology that fixes blurry telescope images caused by the atmosphere.
-

2. Paragraph Coherence

Definition: Sentences in a paragraph should **flow logically** and be easy to understand.

Example (Housing paragraph):

- Weak: Sentences are separate facts about housing → confusing.
- Improved: Sentences are connected → problem → cause → solution → clear flow.

Tip: Use words like **because, therefore, moreover** to connect ideas.

3. Transitional Words and Phrases

Definition: Words or phrases that **link ideas** between sentences or paragraphs.

Examples:

- **Addition:** also, moreover
- **Cause and effect:** therefore, as a result
- **Sequence:** first, next, finally

Example:

- Reducing drag in rockets is important. **For example**, bad fuselage design increases fuel cost. **Moreover**, drag stresses joints. **Therefore**, we plan to develop a model to reduce drag.
-

4. Linking Pronouns

Definition: Pronouns (he, she, it, they) **refer to something mentioned earlier** to make writing smoother.

Example:

- Weak: “Experiments demonstrated x-rays. Spots on a plate provided proof.”
 - Improved: “**His** experiments demonstrated x-rays. Spots on a plate provided proof for **his** hypothesis.”
-

5. Repetition of Key Words

Definition: Repeat important words to **emphasize the main idea**.

Example:

- Weak: “System can use repeaters, filters, or gateways.”

- Improved: “System can use **packet repeaters**, **packet filters**, or **packet gateways**.”
-

6. Paragraph Development Patterns

Paragraphs can be developed in different ways depending on your topic.

a) Exemplification

Definition: Use **examples** to explain your point.

- Example: Breads and cereals are enriched with B vitamins and iron. Milk is fortified with vitamin D.
-

b) Narration

Definition: Tell **events in order** (chronological order).

- Example: Steps of wastewater treatment at Love Canal landfill: collection → filtration → carbon treatment → discharge permit.
-

c) Process

Definition: Explain **how something works or is done step by step**.

- Example: Image analysis for detecting a target: 1) sample images, 2) sum pixel values, 3) find target region, 4) subtract background noise.
-

d) Description

Definition: Explain **what something looks like or how it functions**.

- Example: Test section of a boundary layer tunnel: flat aluminum plate, contoured walls, transparent sides.
-

e) Analogy

Definition: Compare **one thing to another** to make it easier to understand.

- Example: Immune system = army. White blood cells attack invading germs like soldiers attack enemies.
-

f) Cause and Effect

Definition: Show **how one event causes another**.

- Example: Greenhouse gases → global warming → heat-related deaths (stroke, heart attacks).
-

g) Comparison and Contrast

Definition: Show **similarities (comparison)** or **differences (contrast)**.

- Example: Fiber-optic cables vs coaxial cables: fiber-optic lasts longer, carries more data, and resists interference.
-

h) Classification and Division

Definition:

- **Classification:** Group things by similarity.
- **Division:** Break a topic into smaller parts.

Example: Corrosion-resistant ceramics: bricks, stoneware, glazed tile.

i) Definition

Definition: Explain a term clearly so everyone understands.

- Example: **Bimetals** = components made of two different metals joined together.
 - Aluminum-clad steel → strong + conductive.
 - Superconductor with copper → superconductivity + safety.
-

j) Analysis

Definition: Examine a topic and explain **how or why it works**.

- Example: Poverty → stress → weak immune system → higher cancer risk.
-

k) Enumeration

Definition: List things in order or number them.

- Example: Blood cholesterol guidelines:
 1. Under 200 → healthy lifestyle.
 2. 200–239 → retest, adjust diet.
 3. 240+ → detailed test, start diet immediately.

✓ **Tips for Good Paragraphs:**

- Focus on **one main idea** (unity).
- Make sentences **flow logically** (coherence).
- Use **linking words** and **key word repetition**.
- Choose a **development pattern** (examples, narration, process, etc.) based on topic.

Business and Technical English

Lesson 36: Sentences

1. Stacked Modifiers and Nouns

Definition: Avoid putting too many adjectives or nouns together. Long strings are **hard to read** and confusing.

Tip: Add small connecting words like **of, for, with** to make meaning clear.

Example:

- Hard to read: “*High-speed data transmission system protocol errors*”
- Clearer: “*Errors in the protocol of the high-speed data transmission system*”

Difficult terms:

- **Modifier:** Word that describes another word (e.g., *high-speed* describes *system*).
- **Noun string:** Several nouns used together without connectors.

2. Wordiness

Definition: Use only the words needed to explain clearly. Extra words make writing **slow and unclear**.

Causes of wordiness:

1. **Passive Voice** – “The report was written by the manager.” → longer and hides who did it.
 - Active: “The manager wrote the report.” ✓
 2. **Nominalizations** – Turning verbs into nouns makes sentences longer.
 - Wordy: “The implementation of the plan was difficult.”
 - Clear: “Implementing the plan was difficult.” ✓
 3. **Unnecessary repetition** – Don’t repeat what you already said.
 - Wordy: “Each individual person must apply personally.”
 - Clear: “Each person must apply.” ✓
 4. **Unnecessary words/phrases** – Avoid filler phrases like *There is/are, It is*.
 - Wordy: “There are many problems in the system.”
 - Clear: “The system has many problems.” ✓
-

3. Overloaded Sentences

Definition: Sentences with too much information are **hard to follow**. Break them into smaller parts.

a) Sentence Fragments

Definition: Sentences missing a subject, a verb, or both.

Examples:

- Wrong: “Driving in the city during the evening rush hour.” (No verb describing what is happening)
- Wrong: “To apply for a job at the new store in the mall.” (No subject doing the action)

✓ Correct: “I was driving in the city during the evening rush hour.”

b) Comma Splice

Definition: Two complete sentences joined with only a comma. ✗

Examples:

- Wrong: “The sun is high, put on some sun block.”
- Wrong: “This computer doesn’t make sense to me, it came without a manual.”

Fixes:

1. Make two sentences: “The sun is high. Put on some sun block.”
 2. Use semicolon: “The sun is high; put on some sun block.”
 3. Use comma + conjunction: “The sun is high, so put on some sun block.”
 4. Make one clause subordinate: “Because the sun is high, put on some sun block.” ✓
-

c) Fused Sentences

Definition: Two independent clauses run together without punctuation or conjunction.

Example:

- Wrong: “I got up late this morning I didn’t have time for breakfast.”
 - Fix: “I got up late this morning, so I didn’t have time for breakfast.” ✓
-

d) Stringy Sentences

Definition: Too many ideas in one long sentence. Break into **smaller, clear sentences**.

Example:

- Stringy: “I went to the market, bought fruits, met a friend, talked about the weather, and then returned home.”
 - Clear:
 1. “I went to the market and bought fruits.”
 2. “I met a friend and talked about the weather.”
 3. “Then I returned home.” ✓
-

4. Agreement

Definition: Words in a sentence must **match each other**.

1. **Subject-verb agreement** – Subject and verb must match in number.

- Wrong: “The team are winning.”
 - Correct: “The team is winning.” ✓
2. **Pronoun-antecedent agreement** – Pronoun must match the noun it replaces.
- Wrong: “Each student must submit their homework.”
 - Correct: “Each student must submit **his or her** homework.” ✓
3. **Pronoun case** – Use correct form (I, me, he, him, etc.)
- Wrong: “Her and me went to the office.”
 - Correct: “She and I went to the office.” ✓
4. **Pronoun reference** – Make sure pronouns clearly refer to the correct noun.
- Wrong: “When John met Peter, he was happy.” (Who was happy?)
 - Correct: “When John met Peter, John was happy.” ✓
-

✓ **Key Tips for Better Sentences**

- Keep sentences **short and clear**.
- Use **active voice**.
- Avoid **extra words, repetitions, and nominalizations**.
- Break **long sentences** into smaller ones.
- Check **agreement** (subject-verb, pronoun-noun).

Business & Technical English

Lesson 37: Sentences II

1. Lack of Parallelism

Definition: All similar items in a sentence or list should have the **same structure**.

Example:

- Wrong: “He likes cricket and playing football.”

- Correct: "He likes cricket and football." ✓

Tip: Check lists, headings, and outlines – all items must match in form.

2. Chippy Sentences

Definition: Too many short sentences make writing jumpy and hard to read.

Example:

- Chippy: "I went to the market. I bought fruits. I met a friend."
- Better: "I went to the market, bought fruits, and met a friend." ✓

Tip: Combine sentences using conjunctions (and, but, or) or clauses.

3. Interrupted Sentence / Misplaced Modifiers

Definition: A modifier (extra information) in the wrong place confuses the sentence.

Example:

- Weak: "The heron, egret, and stork colonies in Everglades National Park that once contained tens of thousands of birds have shrunk by 95%."
- Clear: "The bird colonies in Everglades National Park once contained tens of thousands of birds. These colonies of herons, egrets, and storks have shrunk by 95%." ✓

Tip: Keep extra info short or move it to the end.

4. Modifiers of Nouns

Definition: Words that describe a noun should be **close to it**.

Example:

- Weak: "Lead ingots were examined by inspectors that circle the tower."
 - Clear: "More than 750 metric tons of lead ingots that circle the tower were examined by the inspectors." ✓
-

5. Adverb Modifiers

Definition: Place adverbs (words describing verbs, adjectives, or other adverbs) **next to the word they describe**.

Example:

- Correct: "She quickly ran to the store." ✓
 - Wrong: "She ran to the store quickly." (Can confuse in long sentences)
-

6. Dangling Modifiers

Definition: A modifier that does **not clearly describe anything** in the sentence.

Example:

- Weak: "When traveling at the speed of sound, the moon is 320 hours away."
 - Correct: "An object traveling at the speed of sound will reach the moon in approximately 320 hours." ✓
-

7. Double Negatives

Definition: Using two negatives in one sentence can **confuse meaning** or make it positive.

Example:

- Wrong: "had not never been built"
 - Correct: "had never been built." ✓
-

8. Faulty Comparisons

Definition: Comparisons must be **clear and parallel**.

Nonparallel: "He likes cricket and playing football."

Correct: "He likes cricket and football." ✓

Incomplete: "Shoaib Akhtar is a better player."

Correct: "Shoaib Akhtar is a better player than Brett Lee." ✓

9. Inappropriate Shifts

Definition: Don't change **tense, mood, person, or voice** unnecessarily.

Example – Tense:

- Wrong: “She cooked dinner and eats lunch.”
- Correct: “She cooked dinner and ate lunch.” ✓

Example – Mood:

- Imperative: “Read the instructions carefully.”
- Indicative: “You must read the instructions carefully.”
- Don’t mix moods in the same sentence without reason.

10. Sequence of Tenses

Definition: Use verbs correctly to show **time of events**.

Example:

- “The reaction appears to have finished already.” ✓

11. Pronoun Reference

Definition: Make sure pronouns (he, she, it, this, they) clearly refer to a specific noun.

Unclear: “The port stores the second character in the same register, overwriting it.”

Clear: “The port stores the second character in the same register as the first one, overwriting the first character.” ✓

Broad reference: “This facilitates musical transcription.”

- Clear: “This direct input facilitates musical transcription.” ✓

12. Pronoun Case

Definition: Pronouns change form depending on their function.

Case	Function	Example
Subjective	Subject	I, you, he, she, it, we, they → <i>She runs fast.</i>
Objective	Object	me, you, him, her, it, us, them → <i>The teacher called me.</i>

Case	Function	Example
------	----------	---------

Possessive	Shows ownership	my, your, his, her, its, our, their → <i>This is my book.</i>
------------	-----------------	---

Exam-Friendly Tips

1. Keep lists, headings, and comparisons **parallel**.
 2. Combine short sentences; avoid choppy writing.
 3. Place modifiers **close to the word** they describe.
 4. Avoid **dangling modifiers, double negatives, and unclear pronouns**.
 5. Maintain **consistent tense, mood, person, and voice**.
 6. Check pronoun case and reference for clarity.
-

Difficult Terms – Simple Summary

- **Parallelism:** Making items in a list or sentence the same type/structure.
- **Modifier:** Word/phrase that describes something else (noun, verb, adjective).
- **Dangling Modifier:** Modifier that does not clearly describe anything.
- **Choppy Sentence:** Too many short sentences in a row.
- **Pronoun Reference:** Clear connection between pronoun and the noun it replaces.
- **Pronoun Case:** Form of pronoun depending on its use (subject, object, possessive).

Business & Technical English

Lesson 38: Language & Punctuation

1. Abstract and General Language

- **Definition:** Use **specific and clear words** instead of general or vague ones. Avoid fancy, unnecessary words.
- **Example:**
 - Vague: “Some people think technology affects society.”

- Clear: “Many students in Pakistan use mobile apps to complete assignments.” ✓
-

2. Vague Language

- **Definition:** Words or statements that are unclear or lack detail. Use **facts or exact numbers**.
 - **Example:**
 - Vague: “The machine works fast.”
 - Clear: “The machine produces 100 units per hour.” ✓
-

3. Ornate Language

- **Definition:** Fancy or complicated words that **do not help meaning**. Avoid them.
 - **Example:**
 - Ornate: “Utilize”
 - Simple: “Use” ✓
-

4. Technical Terms

- **Definition:** Words used in a specific field or profession. Only use if your audience understands. Otherwise, use simpler terms.
 - **Example:**
 - Expert audience: “PCR amplifies DNA segments.”
 - General audience: “A lab process copies DNA segments.” ✓
-

5. Biased Language

- **Definition:** Words that may offend or stereotype people based on **gender, age, disability, race, or ethnicity**.
- **Types:**
 1. **Sexist Language:** Avoid gender assumptions.
 - Wrong: “Fireman” → Correct: “Firefighter” ✓

2. **Ageist Language:** Avoid words insulting older or younger people.
 3. **Disability-biased Language:** Avoid insulting physical or mental abilities.
 4. **Ethnic/Racial Bias:** Avoid stereotypes about race, nationality, or culture.
-

6. Punctuation

- **Definition:** Marks that make writing **clear and readable**.

6.1 Periods (.)

- **Use:** End sentences, show decimals, or in abbreviations.
 - **Example:** “The engine uses steam to move the piston.”
-

6.2 Commas (,)

Use commas to make meaning clear:

1. **Introductory Elements** – After phrases, words, or clauses at the start.
 - Example: “After finishing the report, she submitted it.” ✓
2. **Joining Clauses** – Before conjunctions (and, but, or) connecting two sentences.
 - Example: “The sun is high, so put on sunscreen.” ✓
3. **Elements in a Series** – Separate items in a list. Use the final comma for clarity.
 - Example: “I bought apples, oranges, and bananas.” ✓
4. **Coordinate Modifiers** – Separate adjectives that equally describe a noun.
 - Example: “It was a long, tiring journey.” ✓
5. **Nonrestrictive Modifiers** – Extra info, not essential. Often starts with “which.”
 - Example: “The car, which was red, sped past us.” ✓
6. **Parenthetical Elements** – Extra explanation inserted in a sentence.
 - Example: “The manager, however, disagreed with the decision.” ✓
7. **Elliptical Constructions** – Show words are left out but understood.
 - Example: “Some students study math; others, science.” ✓

8. **Numbers** – Use commas in large numbers.

- Example: “The company sold 212,413 units.” ✓

Extra Tips:

- Commas go **inside quotation marks** but **outside parentheses**.
- Don’t add commas unnecessarily.

Difficult Terms – Simple Definitions

Term	Simple Definition	Example
Abstract Language	General words without clear meaning	“Technology affects people” → too general
Vague Language	Words that lack detail or clarity	“The machine works fast” → unclear
Ornate Language	Fancy words that don’t add meaning	“Utilize” → “Use”
Technical Terms	Specialized words used in a field	“PCR amplifies DNA”
Biased Language	Words that stereotype or offend	“Fireman” → “Firefighter”
Nonrestrictive Modifier	Extra info in a sentence, not essential	“The car, which is red, sped past us”
Parenthetic Element	Extra explanation added in a sentence	“The manager, however, disagreed”
Elliptical Construction	Leaving out words that are understood	“Some study math; others, science”
Introductory Element	Words/phrases at the start needing a comma	“After lunch, we left.”
Coordinate Modifiers	Two adjectives equally describing a noun	“Long, tiring journey”
Sequence of Tenses	Correct use of verb tenses	“He said he had finished the work.”

Business & Technical English

Lesson 39: Punctuation II

1. Colons (:

- **Use a colon to:**
 1. Introduce lists, quotations, or explanations.
 2. Express ratios (e.g., 3:1).
 3. Separate units of time or elements in citations.
 4. Separate titles from subtitles.

Examples:

- **List:** “The system includes the following items: alarms, sensors, and cameras.”
 - **Quotation:** He said: “Install the software immediately.”
 - **Explanation:** “She asked a question: How will the system handle errors?”
 - **Ratio:** “Mix sugar and water in a 1:2 ratio.”
 - **Time:** “The train departs at 7:05 a.m.”
 - **Citation:** Journal of Science 4:151 (1991)
-

2. Semicolons (;)

- **Use a semicolon to:**
 1. Join two independent sentences without a conjunction.
 2. Separate items in a list if the items themselves have commas.

Examples:

- Independent clauses: “The system has three parts; two are automatic, and one is manual.”
 - List with commas: “We visited Paris, France; Rome, Italy; and London, England.”
-

3. Question Marks (?)

- End a question sentence.
- Can change a statement or command into a question.

Examples:

- “Have you completed the project?” ✓
 - “Start production on Friday?” ✓
-

4. Exclamation Points (!)

- Rare in technical writing. Only use to:
 - Show warnings.
 - Show excitement in scientific notation.

Example:

- “Caution! High voltage!”
-

5. Apostrophes (’)

- Use for:
 - Possession: “The engineer’s report.”
 - Contractions: “It’s ready.”
 - Some plurals of abbreviations/numbers: “There are two A’s in the grade sheet.”
-

6. Quotation Marks (“ ”)

- Use for:
 1. Short articles, reports, or documents.
 2. Direct speech or quotations.
- Do not use quotation marks for block quotations or for emphasis.

Example:

- “The article ‘Renewable Energy Trends’ discusses solar power.”
-

7. Hyphens (-)

- **Use to:**

1. Connect prefixes, suffixes, letters, numbers, compound nouns, or modifiers.
2. Clarify meaning.
3. Join spelled-out numbers (21–99) or fractions.
4. Split words at the end of a line if needed.

Examples:

- Prefix + noun: “ex-Soviet scientist”
 - Compound noun: “light-year”
 - Compound modifier: “laser-alignment process”
 - Numbers/fractions: “twenty-one students”
 - Word split: “com-pu-ter”
 - **Suspended hyphen:** Avoid repeating the last word in a series.
 - “first-, second-, and third-order equations” ✓
 - **Special uses:** Single bonds in chemistry: (CH₃)₂-CH-CH₂-CH(NH₂)-OH
-

8. Dashes (– or —)

- Show **abrupt changes**, emphasize, or add extra info.
- Use sparingly; commas or parentheses are often better.

Example:

- “Water—only because we are familiar with it—behaves similarly to other liquids.”
-

9. Parentheses ()

- Add extra or secondary information.
- Can also enclose full sentences that are relevant but not essential.

Example:

- “The experiment was successful (all samples passed the test).”

10. Brackets []

- Used to:
 1. Add explanations or corrections inside a quotation.
 2. Enclose material already in parentheses.
 3. Show isotopes or chemical elements.
 4. Indicate errors in original text (use [sic]).

Examples:

- Explanation: “Proton levels [in the accelerator] were higher than expected.”
 - Nested parentheses: “See Alan Lightman, *Ancient Light* [Cambridge: Harvard University Press], pp.5-9.”
 - Isotope: “[14C] urea”
 - Correction: “Hungarian [sic] is not an Indo-European language.”
-

Difficult Terms – Simple Definitions

Term	Simple Meaning	Example
Colon (:)	Punctuation to introduce lists, quotes, explanations, or ratios	“She asked: What is the plan?”
Semicolon (;)	Connects two full sentences or separates complex list items	“We visited Paris, France; Rome, Italy; and London, England.”
Hyphen (-)	Joins words, numbers, prefixes, or modifiers	“twenty-one students, laser-alignment process”
Dash (– or —)	Shows sudden shift, extra info, or emphasis	“Water—only because we know it—acts similarly.”
Parentheses ()	Add extra info not essential	“The result (all samples passed) was good.”
Brackets []	Add explanation or correction inside quotes	“Proton levels [in the accelerator] were high.”

Term	Simple Meaning	Example
Suspended Hyphen	Share the repeated part of compound words	“first-, second-, and third-order equations”
Exclamation Mark (!)	Shows warnings or excitement	“Caution! High voltage!”
Question Mark (?)	Ends a question	“Did you complete the task?”
Apostrophe (')	Show possession or contraction	“Engineer’s report, it’s ready”
Quotation Marks (“ ”)	Show speech or short titles	“‘Renewable Energy Trends’ discusses solar power.”

Business & Technical English

Lesson 40

Chapter Name (Simple for Exam): “Mechanics of Writing: Capitalization, Numbers, Symbols & Formatting”

This lesson teaches:

How to correctly format technical and business writing using capitalization, italics, abbreviations, acronyms, numbers, symbols, equations, and spelling.

1. Capitalization

- **Definition:** Using capital letters correctly in writing.
- **Rules:**
 1. Capitalize the **first word of a sentence**.
 - *Example:* The QA engineer said, “The main source of failure is seal deformation.”
 2. Capitalize **proper names**: people, places, projects, rivers, vessels, cultures, ethnic groups, and job titles.
 - *Example:* Parkinson’s disease, Venus, Boeing 757
 3. Capitalize **titles of books, journals, articles**.

- *Example:* Handbook of Physical Constants

- **Special rules for science:**

- Capitalize astronomical bodies **except** sun, moon, and earth (unless compared to others).
 - *Example:* The sun is an ordinary star. Venus and Earth differ in atmosphere.
 - Medical terms: capitalize **only proper nouns** in the name.
 - *Example:* infectious mononucleosis, brachial plexus
-

2. Italics

- **Definition:** Slanted text used to highlight or emphasize.
 - **When to use:**
 1. Titles of journals, books, manuals
 - *Example:* Aviation Week and Space Technology
 2. Letters, terms, or equation symbols being discussed
 - *Example:* The term *dielectric* is used here.
 3. Foreign words
 - *Example:* élan, Privatdozent
 4. Emphasis in a sentence
 - *Example:* The Chernobyl reactor surged from its standby level to *50 percent* of its capacity.
 - **Not italicized:** model's class, manufacturer, or model number
 - *Example:* space shuttle Enterprise, Boeing 757
-

3. Abbreviations

- **Definition:** Short forms of words.
- **Rules:**
 - Avoid unnecessary abbreviations.
 - Some abbreviations **always have periods:** Mr., Ms., B.A., Ph.D.

- Common Latin abbreviations:

- *cf.* – compare
 - *et al.* – and others
 - *i.e.* – that is
 - *e.g.* – for example
-

4. Acronyms

- **Definition:** Shortened form of a phrase using the first letters of words.
 - **Examples:**
 - AIDS – Acquired Immunodeficiency Syndrome
 - RAM – Random Access Memory
 - ROM – Read-Only Memory
 - FTP – File Transfer Protocol
 - HTML – Hypertext Markup Language
 - HIV – Human Immunodeficiency Virus
-

5. Numbers

- **General Rules:**
 - Use **Arabic numerals** (1, 2, 3...) in technical writing.
 - *Example:* 3 subroutines, 61 amino acids
 - Use **words** for numbers < 100 in non-technical text.
 - *Example:* seventy-three hours, nine hundred thousand
 - Use **comma for thousands** and **period for decimals**:
 - *Example:* 12,341.34
- **British vs American:**
 - US: 12,432,421

- UK: 12.432.421
- Decimal: US – 0.414 ; UK – 0,414

6. Enumeration

- **Definition:** Numbering sections, tables, figures, or chapters.
- **Rules:**
 - Number pages: i, ii, iii... for front matter; 1, 2, 3... for body.
 - Tables/Figures: Table 1, Table 2, or with chapter number: Table 5-1

7. Symbols

- **Definition:** Signs used in technical writing to represent quantities or operations.
- **Rules:**
 - Use symbols consistently.
 - If unfamiliar, write the full word first, then the symbol in parentheses.
 - Include a **list of symbols** in the front matter if many are used.

8. Equations

- **Rules:**
 - Include only main equations in the body.
 - Explain each term.
 - Detailed calculations go in appendices.
 - Example:

$$V_d = \frac{E_s}{B} \quad (\text{Eq. 7})$$

- V_d = drift velocity
- E_s = static field magnitude
- B = magnetic field strength

9. Spelling

- **Rules:**

- Proofread your work.
- Use spell checker but check manually.
- Be consistent (American or British English).
- Common differences:

American British

center centre

color colour

defense defence

enroll enrol

organize organise

- **Dictionaries:** Desk, unabridged, ESL, technical dictionaries
-

Difficult Terms – Simple Summary

Term	Simple Meaning	Example
Italics	Slanted text to highlight	<i>dielectric</i>
Acronym	Short form using first letters	RAM = Random Access Memory
Enumeration	Numbering sections or items	Table 5-1
Symbols	Signs for quantities/operations	Vd, B, E
Appendices	Extra material at the end	Detailed calculations

Business & Technical English

Lesson 41

Chapter Name (Simple): Listening and Interviewing Skills

1. Facing a Communication Dilemma

- **Example:** Rockport president called all 350 employees to a 2-day meeting.
 - **Meaning:** Sometimes big decisions need everyone to communicate directly.
 - **Lesson:** Oral communication (talking and listening) is very important in workplaces.
-

2. Communicating Orally

- **Definition:** Speaking and listening to share ideas.
- **Why it's important:**
 - Faster than writing
 - Includes body language, tone, gestures
 - Builds teamwork and trust

Tips for speaking effectively:

- Organize your thoughts
 - Choose style based on situation (formal vs informal)
 - Watch the listener's reactions
 - Use telephone wisely: plan calls, avoid extra talk, send faxes if needed
-

3. Listening

- **Definition:** Paying attention to understand the message, not just hear it.
- **Importance:** Helps relationships, learning, problem-solving, and decision-making.

3.1 What Happens When You Listen

- **Sensing:** Hearing the words
- **Interpreting:** Understanding meaning
- **Evaluating:** Deciding what's important
- **Remembering:** Keeping information in memory

- **Responding:** Giving feedback

3.2 Three Types of Listening

1. **Content Listening:** Understand and remember information
 - Example: Taking notes in a meeting
2. **Critical Listening:** Analyze and judge information
 - Example: Listening to a presentation and deciding if it's correct
3. **Active Listening:** Fully focus and respond to the speaker
 - Example: Nodding, saying "yes" or "hmm" to show you are listening

3.3 Tips for Better Listening

- Maintain eye contact
- Notice body language
- Give verbal and non-verbal feedback
- Avoid distractions
- Keep an open mind

Good vs Bad Listener:

Good Listener

Listens for main ideas

Waits to understand

Uses feedback

Focused and attentive

Exercises mind

Open to emotions

Bad Listener

Only listens for facts

Interrupts or argues

Ignores speaker

Easily distracted

Avoids hard topics

Reacts emotionally

4. Conducting Interviews

- **Definition:** A conversation to get or give information.
- **Purpose:**

- Get or give information
- Solve problems
- Persuade actions
- Build goodwill

5. Types of Interviews

- **Job interview:** For hiring
 - **Informative interview:** To learn info
 - **Persuasive interview:** To convince someone
 - **Exit interview:** When someone leaves a job
 - **Evaluation interview:** Assess performance
 - **Counseling interview:** Guide employees
 - **Conflict-resolution interview:** Solve disputes
 - **Disciplinary interview:** Correct mistakes
 - **Termination interview:** Firing someone
-

Difficult Terms – Simple Definitions

Term	Meaning	Example
Oral communication	Talking and listening	Meetings, phone calls
Active listening	Paying full attention and responding	Nodding, saying “yes”
Critical listening	Thinking carefully about what you hear	Evaluating a speech
Content listening	Listening to understand and remember	Taking class notes
Interview	Structured conversation for a purpose	Job interview

Short Summary

- Oral communication is key in business.

- Listening is more than hearing; it helps understand, evaluate, and respond.
- There are 3 types of listening: content, critical, and active.
- Good listeners use eye contact, feedback, and open-mindedness.
- Interviews are structured conversations; types include job, evaluation, counseling, and termination.

Business & Technical English

Lesson 42

Chapter Name (Simple): Planning Interviews and Meetings

1. Planning Interviews

- **Definition:** Preparing for a conversation to get information or solve a problem.
- **Steps:**
 1. Decide your purpose.
 2. Understand the other person.
 3. Plan main points and questions.
 4. Decide the length and style of interview.
- **Tip:** Even as the person being interviewed, you can plan your answers and ask questions to stay in control.
- **Example:** If asked about work experience, prepare points about skills and achievements.

Questions to ask yourself before interview:

- What is my role and the other person's role?
 - What does the other person expect from me?
 - Should I be friendly or formal?
-

2. Types of Interview Questions

Type	Meaning	Example	When to Use
Open-ended	Cannot answer yes/no; invites opinion	“How do you feel about this project?”	To learn feelings and ideas
Direct open-ended	Guides answer but still allows explanation	“What steps have you taken to improve sales?”	To get focused responses
Closed-ended	Yes/no or short answers	“Did you finish the report?”	To get specific info quickly
Restatement	Repeat what respondent said to clarify	“You said you dislike long meetings, is that right?”	To encourage details and show listening

3. Interview Structure

Good interviews have **3 parts**:

1. **Opening:** Introduce yourself, explain purpose, make the person comfortable.
2. **Body:** Ask questions using a mix of open and closed types.
3. **Closing:** Summarize, clarify, thank the person.

Tips:

- Open-ended questions take longer; plan accordingly.
- After interview, write notes and send a thank-you message if needed.
- About 20 questions can be asked in a 30-minute interview.

4. Participating in Small Groups & Meetings

- **Definition:** Working with multiple people to share information or make decisions.
- **Importance:** Meetings help coordinate tasks and involve everyone.
- **Problem:** Poor meetings waste time and may cause bad decisions.

5. Understanding Group Dynamics

- **Definition:** How people interact in a group.

- Each person has personal motives that can help or harm group work.

Roles in a group

1. **Self-oriented roles:** Focus on personal needs (less productive)
 - Controlling: Dominates others
 - Withdrawing: Silent or avoids work
 - Attention-seeking: Wants recognition
 - Diverting: Changes topic to personal interest
 2. **Group-maintenance roles:** Help group work together
 - Encouraging: Support others
 - Harmonizing: Reduce conflicts
 - Compromising: Give way to reach agreement
 3. **Task-facilitating roles:** Help achieve goals
 - Initiating: Start discussion
 - Information giving/seeking: Share or ask info
 - Coordinating: Connect ideas, summarize
 - Procedure setting: Suggest how decisions are made
-

6. Group Norms

- **Definition:** Unwritten rules in a group.
 - **Example:** Being 10 minutes late may be okay, 15 is not.
 - **Warning:** Strong loyalty can cause **groupthink** – agreeing with everyone even if wrong.
-

7. Group Decision-Making Phases

1. **Orientation:** Meet, socialize, set purpose
2. **Conflict:** Discuss different opinions
3. **Emergence:** Agree on solution

4. **Reinforcement:** Summarize and assign tasks
-

8. Arranging a Meeting

- Plan: purpose, participants, agenda, and location
 - Invite the right people and set the right time
-

9. Contributing to a Productive Meeting

Leader:

- Be prepared, guide discussion, encourage participation, summarize points, record minutes

Participant:

- Listen actively, observe group, speak when helpful, don't dominate
-

Difficult Words – Simple Definitions

Word	Meaning	Example
Interview	A structured conversation to get info	Job interview
Open-ended question	Question that needs explanation	“How do you solve problems at work?”
Closed-ended question	Question with yes/no or short answer	“Did you attend the meeting?”
Restatement question	Repeat answer to clarify	“You said you prefer email. Is that right?”
Group dynamics	How people behave in a group	Who talks more, who is quiet
Groupthink	Following the group even if wrong	Agreeing with a bad plan to fit in
Agenda	List of topics for a meeting	Meeting schedule
Role	A person's job in a group	Leader, note-taker, motivator

Short Summary

- Interviews need planning: purpose, questions, structure.
- Use open-ended questions for opinions, closed-ended for facts.

- Meetings need good planning, agenda, and participation.
- Group roles affect productivity: self-focused, team-focused, task-focused.
- Leaders guide discussion; participants listen and contribute.
- Group norms affect behavior; avoid groupthink.

Business & Technical English

Lesson 43

Chapter Name (Simple): Giving Speeches and Presentations I

1. Facing a Communication Problem

- **Example:** Brad Keys, owner of 11 KFC restaurants, realized that good food isn't enough. To succeed, he needed people to trust him – bankers, employees, customers.
 - **Lesson:** Communication is key to gain respect, trust, and cooperation.
-

2. Preparing to Speak

When giving a speech or presentation, you should:

1. **Define your purpose** – Why are you speaking?
 2. **Analyze your audience** – Who will listen, and what do they need?
 3. **Plan your speech** – Organize ideas clearly.
-

2a. Defining Your Purpose

- Speeches can:
 - **Motivate or entertain:** Mostly you talk, audience listens.
 - **Inform or analyze:** Some audience interaction, answer questions.
 - **Persuade or collaborate:** Audience participates actively; less control.
- **Tip:** One speech can serve multiple purposes.

Example: Explaining a new project to persuade employees to cooperate.

2b. Analyzing Your Audience

- Ask:
 - How many people? Small group = more interaction, Large group = mostly talking.
 - Are they similar (homogeneous) or different (diverse)?
 - Will they like your message or be skeptical?
 - Do they know and respect you?

Example: A team of experts may need more technical details than a general audience.

3. Planning Your Speech

Four main steps:

1. **Main Idea:**
 - Focus on the big message you want to share.
 - Should be one clear sentence.
 - **Example:** “Reorganizing our department will improve service and reduce costs.”
2. **Outline:**
 - Include subject, purpose, audience, and time.
 - Short talk = like a memo, long talk = like a report.
 - Plan transitions and where visual aids will help.
3. **Estimate Length:**
 - Average: 125–150 words per minute.
 - Example: 10-minute talk = 3 main points (2 min each), 1 min intro, 1 min conclusion.
 - Adjust time based on topic complexity and audience knowledge.
4. **Decide Style:**
 - Small group = casual, conversational, allow questions.
 - Large group/formal = formal tone, use slides, hold questions for end.

4. Developing Formal Speeches

- Similar to writing a report but for speaking.
 - **Opportunity:** Interact with audience, adjust speech, use feedback.
 - **Challenge:** Less control if audience asks unexpected questions.
 - Be flexible and accommodate listeners' attention span.
-

4a. Introduction

Purpose:

1. **Arouse interest** – Make audience care about topic.
2. **Build credibility** – Show you are qualified.
3. **Preview** – Tell audience what to expect.

Tips for interest:

- Connect topic to audience's needs.
- Use examples or numbers that relate to them.

Example: "If you save \$5 per week, you could get \$200,000 at retirement."

4b. Building Credibility

- **Definition:** Audience trusts you and takes you seriously.
 - How to do it:
 - Mention position, experience, company.
 - Keep it short and honest.
 - **Example:** "I'm Karen Whitney, a market analyst, here to brief you on trends in computer-aided design."
-

4c. Previewing the Presentation

- Give audience a roadmap:

- State main idea.
- Show key points.
- Indicate the order of presentation.

Benefit: Audience understands how details relate to main message.

Difficult Words – Simple Definitions

Word	Meaning	Example
Audience	People who listen	Students in a class
Credibility	Trustworthiness	Audience believes speaker is qualified
Main idea	Central message	“We need a new plant in Texas”
Outline	Organized plan of speech	Intro, body, conclusion
Homogeneous	Similar	All engineers in a meeting
Heterogeneous	Diverse	Mixed group of staff
Visual aids	Pictures, slides to explain	PowerPoint slides
Interaction	Two-way communication	Audience asks questions

Short Summary

- Prepare before speaking: define purpose, know audience, plan main points.
- Main idea guides the speech; outline organizes content.
- Time your speech based on topic and audience.
- Style depends on group size and occasion (casual vs formal).
- Introduction is important: get attention, build credibility, preview points.
- Be flexible: adapt to audience feedback, questions, and reactions.

Business & Technical English

Lesson 44

Chapter Name (Simple): Giving Speeches and Presentations II

1. The Body of the Speech

- This is the main part of your speech. Focus on 3–4 main points.
- Keep it simple and organized like a letter, memo, or report.

1a. Emphasizing Structure

- Use **transitions** to connect ideas: small words like **because, therefore, in addition** for sentences, or complete sentences like:
“Now that we’ve reviewed the problem, let’s look at some solutions.”
- Repeat key ideas to help audience remember.
- Use gestures, tone, or visual aids to show transitions.

1b. Holding Audience’s Attention

- Connect points to **audience needs** – they listen more if it affects them personally.
- Link new ideas to things they already know.
- Introduce **variety** in speech (stories, examples, questions).

Example: Explain a new policy by showing how it benefits the employees personally.

2. The Close (Ending)

- About **10% of total time**. Tell audience you are finishing.
- **Restate main points:** Remind the audience of your key message.
- **Next steps:** If action is required, assign responsibilities clearly with deadlines.
- End on a **positive note** even if some parts are negative.

Example:

“We need to complete the project by March. Each team leader will report progress weekly. I’m confident you can do it.”

3. Question & Answer (Q&A)

- Include Q&A to interact with audience.

- For **large or hostile groups**, take questions at the end.
- For **small or collaborative groups**, take questions throughout.
- Tips for handling questions:
 - Listen carefully.
 - Clarify if question is unclear.
 - Give short, direct answers.
 - Admit if you don't know; offer to follow up.
 - Manage time and make sure everyone gets a chance.

Example:

"I don't have those figures right now, but I'll email them to you tomorrow."

4. Visual Aids

- Help audience **remember** and **understand** points.
- Two types:
 1. **Text visuals:** Words, short lists, outline main points.
 - Max 6 lines, 6 words per line.
 - Use uppercase & lowercase, space lines.
 - Example: "Earnings increased by 15%"
 2. **Graphic visuals:** Charts, graphs, diagrams, pictures. Show data clearly.

4a. Choosing the Right Medium

- **Handouts:** Give extra info.
- **Chalkboard/Whiteboard:** Draw ideas for small groups.
- **Flip charts:** Big sheets on an easel; flip pages.
- **Overheads/Slides:** Project info in large format.
- **Computers:** Project slides, charts, or make changes live.
- **Other aids:** Samples, models, movies, videos for demonstrations.

Tip: One visual = one idea. Don't overload. Let audience see first, then explain.

5. Mastering Delivery

5a. Delivery Methods

1. **Memorizing:** Only memorize key parts (quote, intro, ending). Full memorization can sound stiff.
2. **Reading:** Useful for technical or precise info. Practice for eye contact.
3. **Using notes/outline/visuals:** Most effective. Allows eye contact and interaction.
4. **Impromptu:** Only for experienced speakers; think before speaking.

5b. Preparing for Successful Speaking

- Practice a lot (mirror, record audio/video).
- Check location, equipment, lighting.
- Know your subject well – builds confidence.
- Consider audience language and culture if needed.

5c. Delivering the Speech

- Stage fright is normal; prepare to reduce it.
- Tips:
 - Prepare extra material.
 - Think positively about audience and yourself.
 - Take deep breaths before starting.
 - Memorize opening sentence.
 - Use water if throat is dry.

5d. Handling Questions

- Prepare for expected and difficult questions.
- Keep answers short and clear.
- Don't argue or insult questioners.
- Ensure everyone has a chance to ask.
- Summarize at the end and thank the audience.

Difficult Words – Simple Definitions

Word	Meaning	Example
Body	Main part of speech	3–4 main points of presentation
Transition	Words/sentences linking ideas	“Therefore, we can conclude...”
Visual aid	Something to help understand	Charts, slides, graphs
Medium	Method or tool	Computer slides, flip charts
Impromptu	Speaking without preparation	Answering on the spot
Stage fright	Nervousness before speaking	Butterflies in stomach before speech
Credibility	Trustworthiness	Audience believes you know topic

Short Summary

- Body: Present 3–4 main points clearly. Use transitions.
- Keep audience attention by linking points to them and using variety.
- Close: Restate key points, suggest next steps, end positively.
- Q&A: Be prepared, answer clearly, manage audience.
- Visual aids: One idea per visual, simple and clear.
- Delivery: Practice, stay confident, handle stage fright, and prepare for questions.

Business & Technical English

Lesson 45

Topic: Review of Written Communication

1. Audience Analysis

Definition: Knowing who will read your document.

Purpose: To write in a way that suits their needs and understanding.

Steps:

- Identify audience **type** (e.g., manager, client).
- Check their **knowledge level** (expert or beginner).
- Determine **what they want** (information, action, decision).

Example: A memo for office staff will be **short, simple, and direct**. A report for investors will be **detailed and formal**.

2. Defining Objectives

Definition: Knowing the **purpose of your writing**.

Types:

- **Explicit purpose:** Clearly stated (e.g., “Requesting leave”).
- **Implicit purpose:** Implied (e.g., “Here are my achievements” means “I want a promotion”).

Tip: Ask yourself: What action or change do I want from the reader?

Example: In a sales email, the goal is for the reader to **buy a product**.

3. Reader-Centered Writing

Definition: Writing that **focuses on the reader**, not the writer.

Tips:

- Use **“you”** instead of “I”
- Highlight **benefits for the reader**
- Be **clear, concise, and positive**

Example: Instead of “We provide 24/7 support,” write “You get 24/7 support to solve your problems quickly.”

4. Fundamentals of Communication

Key Points (7 Cs):

1. **Clarity** – Easy to understand
2. **Conciseness** – Use few words
3. **Coherence** – Ideas flow logically

4. **Accuracy** – Facts must be correct
5. **Courtesy** – Polite and respectful
6. **Completeness** – All necessary info included
7. **Consideration** – Focus on audience needs

Example:

Wordy: “We are pleased to inform you that we are able to provide your requested services.”

Clear: “We can provide your requested services.”

5. Writing Business Messages

5a. Planning

Definition: Deciding **what to write and how**.

Steps:

- Define **purpose** (inform, request, persuade)
- Know **audience needs**
- Choose **channel** (email, memo, letter, report)

5b. Composing

- Organize **main idea** → **supporting points**
- Use **direct order** if reader will accept the message
- Use **indirect order** if message is sensitive or negative

Example: Bad news: “Due to budget cuts, your request cannot be approved.”

Indirect: “We appreciate your request. After review, we regret that budget constraints prevent approval.”

5c. Revising

- Check **grammar, clarity, style, and relevance**
 - Remove **unnecessary words**
 - Proofread carefully
-

6. Types of Written Communication

Type	Definition	Example
Memo	Informal message within organization	Email to team about meeting
Letter	Formal message outside organization	Letter to supplier
Inquiry Letter	Ask for information	Asking about a product
Recommendation Letter	Endorse someone	Supporting a colleague's promotion
Direct Request	Ask politely for action	Request for office supplies
Good-News Message	Share positive info	Approval of leave request
Bad-News Message	Deliver negative info	Rejection of proposal
Persuasive Message	Convince reader	Sales letter to buy a product
Report	Detailed info	Progress report, feasibility report
Proposal	Suggest solution or project	Proposal to management
Instruction	Step-by-step guide	How to use a new software

7. Visual Aids

Definition: Pictures, charts, or diagrams to make info **easier to understand**.

Types & Examples:

- **Table:** Compare numbers
- **Bar chart:** Show sales growth
- **Pie chart:** Show market share
- **Flow chart:** Steps in a process
- **Diagram/Model:** Explain structure or product

Tip: Keep visual aids **simple and clear**, integrate them with your text.

8. Common Writing Problems & How to Avoid

Problem	Solution
Writer's block	Make outline first
Wordiness	Use short sentences
Poor structure	Organize main idea → points
Grammar mistakes	Proofread carefully
Confusing visuals	Use clear headings & simple charts

9. Language Review

Paragraphs

- **Unity:** One idea per paragraph
- **Coherence:** Ideas flow logically
- **Transitions:** Words like *however, therefore, in addition*

Sentences

- Avoid long, complex sentences
- Use **active voice**: "We completed the project"
- Avoid **passive** unless necessary: "The project was completed by us"

Words & Punctuation

- Avoid vague, biased, or technical terms
 - Use correct punctuation: periods, commas, colons, semicolons, apostrophes
 - Mechanics: capitalization, abbreviations, numbers
-

10. Listening, Interviews, and Meetings

- **Listening skills:** Understand and respond properly
 - **Interview types:** Job interview, survey, appraisal, research
 - **Meetings:** Prepare agenda, discuss issues, make decisions
-

11. Speeches & Oral Presentations

- Plan **Introduction** → **Body** → **Conclusion**
 - Use **visual aids** to explain key points
 - Deliver clearly, maintain **eye contact**
 - Handle **questions confidently**
-

Exam-Friendly Summary (One Page)

Key Points:

1. **Audience first:** Know their needs, expertise, and purpose
2. **Define objectives:** Explicit (clear) or implicit (implied)
3. **Reader-centered writing:** Use “you,” highlight benefits, positive tone
4. **7 Cs of Communication:** Clarity, Conciseness, Coherence, Accuracy, Courtesy, Completeness, Consideration
5. **Business messages:** Plan → Compose → Revise
6. **Types:** Memos, letters, reports, proposals, instructions
7. **Visual aids:** Simple, clear, integrated
8. **Common problems:** Wordiness, grammar, structure – fix by proofreading
9. **Paragraph & sentence tips:** One idea per paragraph, active voice, use transitions
10. **Oral communication:** Plan, practice, deliver, handle questions

Difficult Terms Simplified:

- **Explicit purpose:** Clearly stated reason
- **Implicit purpose:** Hidden or suggested reason
- **Reader-centered:** Focus on reader’s needs
- **Visual aid:** Picture, chart, or diagram to explain something
- **Feasibility report:** Report checking if a plan is possible
- **Indirect order:** Deliver sensitive/bad news carefully

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